



Fundación Dr. Guillermo Manuel Ungo
and
Department of Communication & Language Arts –
University of Ibadan

Topic:

Community Participation in Community-Based Crime Prevention Experiences in Latin America and Africa

Design and Methods paper

Ayobami Ojebode
Alan Melara
Ricardo Córdova
Víctor Tablas

February 25th, 2015

Community Participation in Community-Based Crime Prevention Experiences in Latin America and Africa

Communities have become the main locus of the crime-prevention projects and programmes of governments and donor agencies because although crimes are committed against government, organisations and individuals, the effect is felt across the community (Sampson and Raudenbush, 2001; Sherman, 1998). Additionally, the centralised crime prevention efforts of the state have failed woefully (Dammert, 2005). Communities are expected to be, not just the locus, but also participants in various capacities in crime prevention. However, as Arnstein (1969) points out in her seminal study of community participation, in many community-based schemes, communities are often reduced to passive observers and token takers. Projects are organised for, and not with, the community; even potentially participatory projects have been known to be hijacked.

Literature dwells extensively on the structure, prevalence and shortcomings of community-based crime prevention projects (CBCP) but is silent on the extent to which community's involvement in these projects influences their outcomes. In this study, we investigate how active or passive the communities are in CBCP in Latin America and Africa. More importantly, we seek to understand if the direct and active participation of the community contributes to the outcomes of these programmes and projects in Latin America and Africa.

1. LITERATURE REVIEW

1.1. General about Community-based crime prevention

A recent report by the United Nations Office on Drugs and Crimes (UNODC, 2013) shows that the Americas and Africa occupy the topmost positions in global crime prevalence. The former has a homicide rate of 16.3 per 100,000 while the latter has a rate of 12.5 both of them far above the global average of 6.2 homicides per 100,000 people. What is more disturbing is that in many of the countries, there is a rise in the rates when compared with what obtained in previous years (Institute for Security Studies & Africa Check, 2014).

The continuous rise in crime rates has two interconnected implications: first, it is often a demonstration of the failure of the state to perform one of its statutory roles, which is, provision of security for its citizens and foreigners within its jurisdiction; second, it is the reason that citizens resort to non-state sources of prevention, such as community-based sources (Dammert, 2005).

In that sense, the prevalence of community-based crime prevention (CBCP[1]) efforts is such that has attracted scholarly attention from diverse disciplinary orientations. This widespread

[1] At this point, it is important to define what a community crime prevention strategy is. According to the National Crime Prevention Centre of South Africa (CSIR, 2000) a community crime prevention strategy is defined as: a) an action to prevent crime and violence and reduce public fear of crime. b) A tool to bring together different role-

attention has thrown up what appear to be universal trends as well as diversity in the structure, operation and effectiveness of CBCP in Latin America and Africa. With reference to the convergences, literature shows that four major factors account for the proliferation of CBCP: failure of government to provide security and effective crime prevention. This is in turn caused by poor training of police, corruption and poor politics, among others (Owen and Cooper-Knock, 2014; Dammert, 2005); mistrust – many citizens do not trust the police and so would prefer to handle their crime matters in a way that does not involve the police (Owen and Cooper-Knock, 2014); the residential nature of CBCP which promotes familiarity and in turn develops trust, confidence and cooperation (Nyaura and Ngugi, 2014). The fourth reason is the speed with which "justice" is obtained (Lambert, Wu, Elechi and Jiang, 2012)

Nevertheless, prevalence is different from effectiveness. Scholars, keenly aware of this, have attempted to answer the question of whether or not CBCP is effective and under what conditions. As should be expected in such situations, the verdicts have been varied. In his study of the Oodua People's Congress in Southwest Nigeria, Nolte (2007) observes that this often armed group was effective in not only fighting criminals, restoring law and order and championing change but also in fighting the excesses of both the police and politicians.

In Central America for example, there was a set of CBCP programmes to improve citizen security by strengthening community capacity to combat crime and by creating educational and employment opportunities for at-risk youth has been implemented by USAID. Specifically, the outcomes in the treatment communities improved more than they would have if USAID's programmes had not been administered. (Berk-Selligson et. al, 2014).

Additionally, in South Africa, Baker (2008) notes that while national and local authorities denounced non-state policing groups, the people considered them effective in fighting crimes, being particularly impressed by the traditional crime prevention methods adopted by the groups. Another study by Baker (2008) found evidence to suggest that non-state community-based groups were effective, valuable, relevant and sustainable.

On the other hand, there is evidence to suggest that CBCP often performs below the expectations of both government and citizens in Africa. One of the major failures of CBCP in many African countries is that while they may be effective in reducing petty thievery and even homicides and armed robbery, in many cases they replace these crimes with another, notably mob justice and abuse of citizens' rights (Baker, 2002; Alemika and Chukwuma, 2004; Brogden and Nijhar, 2005). In addition to this, some CBCP often isolate segments of the community – foreigners, those from other ethnic groups and provoke the use of violence (Baker, 2008).

The foregoing disagreement in literature led us to ponder the conditions under which CBCP are effective. Part of the puzzle resides in the nature of specific CBCP attempts. Some CBCP efforts are entirely community-initiated and remain solely in the hands of the citizens while some others are state-initiated and/or state-supported. Others are initiated and/or sponsored

players involved in crime prevention. c) A means of developing local crime prevention partnerships. d) A method to ensure coordination and management of crime prevention initiatives.

by donors (Brogden, 2005). Each of these implies a different level of citizen involvement or participation.

This leads us to ask: does the direct and active participation of the community influence the outcomes of these programmes and projects in Latin America and Africa?

In development studies, the concept of participation, specifically community participation, has been the subject of immense scholarly disquisitions. With the fall of the dominant, top-down development approach, 'participation' became the solve-all word, not just a remedy to the failures of the paradigm that preceded it. Worried about the growing misuse of the term, development scholars began to specify what participation truly means. Arnstein's (1969) ladder of participation is most likely the first disambiguation of that concept.

Arnstein held that several activities lumped up as participation are rather non-participatory. She understood participation as an eight-rung ladder at the bottom of which is manipulation and at the topmost level of which is citizen control. In between these extremes are therapy, placation, informing, consultation, partnership, and delegated power. In her view, manipulation and therapy are non-participation; informing, consultation and placation are forms of tokenism; partnership, delegated power and citizen control "degrees of citizen control".

Others have attempted to improve on Arnstein's ladder. For instance, Burns et al (1994) disaggregated the rungs and came up with twelve rungs starting with civic hype and ending with independent control; Wilcox (1999) proposed five levels of community participation starting with information and ending with supporting individual initiatives. Each of these shows that participation is not a polar or probit concept but one that has shades and gradations.

Cornwall (2008:269) reviews models of participation in an engaging way that pushes the discussion beyond categorisation into the deeper issues of who is participating and who is not, "in what and for whose benefit". She reemphasises the fact that participation is about power and control, and that participation can lead to unforeseen effects. She proposes the concept of optimum participation which resolves the conflict that arises between deep participation (involving a few people but at every stage) and wide participation (involving a many people but only at a few stages of a project).

Literature on CBCP shows varying levels of community participation. In some cases, communities are passive participants – reduced to mere gatherers of intelligence for partnering police or state authorities (Brogden and Nijhar, 2005; Dammert, 2005); in others the community plays an active role from project conception to implementation and to evaluation (Dammert, 2005). On another plane, even actively participating communities tend not to carry along some segments of the community such as the poor, non-indigenes and women (Baker, 2008).Not only this, just as there are self-excluding individuals who choose not to participate, there are also self-excluding communities (Ojebode and Akingbulu, 2013).

Dammert (2005: 138) identified several participatory approaches which can be organised according to two coordinates: a) the definition of who is involved and b) the type of participation developed[2].

In fact, authors such as English, Cummings and Straton (2002) quoting Ekblom and Pease (1995), distinguish between action for the community, action *through* the community, and action *with* the community as key parts of any community-based crime prevention strategy. In fact, the basic philosophy of community crime prevention is that social interaction and citizen familiarity play an important role in preventing, detecting, and reporting criminal behaviour (Mukherjee, 1987, cited in Waring, 1991).

What is missing in the literature on CBCP is an answer to the question of what kind of community participation contributes to the success of CBCP. Combining Cornwall's (2008) thoughts with Dammert's (2005) we came up with two basic types of participation: active participation which involves participation at all aspects of the project, and direct participation which is participation "without a middleman". With this, we will assess how participatory CBCP in Latin America and Africa are, and investigate if a particular kind of community participation leads to project effectiveness. We do not presume that we will encounter clear black-or-white cases; participation is not probit. As a result, we will be sensitive to the different shades, levels and nuances of participation.

1.2. Community-based Crime Prevention Efforts in Latin America and Africa

Community-based crime prevention refers to the broad range of activities conducted with or by the community to control and prevent crime. (Jenkins, 2013). These CBCP involves encouraging and facilitating efforts by the public to take protective measures on their own behalf. It grows out of the realization that the first line of defense against crime is not the police, but the potential victims (Bayley, 1986).

However, it was not always like this. In fact, prior to the decade of the 90s in Latin America, crime was conceived primarily as a police problem and it was related to the criminal justice system. The dominant perspective at the time was that, in the region, the restoration of democracy would bring the improvement of the criminal justice system by itself (Ribeiro & Maître, 2009: 10).

Nevertheless, the opposite was happening: while democracy was being implemented, violence and crime rates were going up[3]. In that line, the zero tolerance and/or 'broken windows'

[2]According to Dammert (2005: 138-139) the community participation can be direct or indirect; the direct participation involves all the community while the indirect type involves only the community leaders. Both approaches of participation can be active or passive depending on the role. The Active role is linked to the design and/or implementation of initiatives, while the passive role implies only receiving the outcomes of institutions, among others.

policing efforts were very popular, contributing to the hegemony of "Mano Dura" (Strong Hand) or "Tolerancia Cero" (Zero Tolerance) security agendas in many countries of the region (Glebbeek forthcoming, Müller 2009a, Corva 2008, Davis 2007, Dammert and Malone 2006, cited in Müller, 2010).

By the middle of the 90s, when the academic sector recognized the relevance of the problem of crime and violence, the diagnostic was that the management system model of public security, highly repressive and with scarce emphasis on the preventive side[4], was not satisfactory[5] (Ribeiro & Maître, 2010: 10).

In the process of involving the citizens in the democratic decision-making stage, community[6] prevention strategies where copied from North-American experiences from the 70s, by merging practices that combine situational prevention and social prevention (Vanderschueren, et al. 2004).

The crime prevention programmes and projects developed by the Latin American countries have in common the idea that crime has various causes, which means that in order to prevent it, nations must act on multiple fronts, implementing strategies and initiatives that promote the involvement of various governmental institutions, NGOs and the citizens. Additionally, the interpretations that try to explain the importance of community prevention initiatives are varied; the most relevant justifies this shift from central policies, due to the failure of the state in its function to reduce crime, mainly because of two central problems: first, the hyper-bureaucratization of the State, that translates into a slower decision-making process and second, citizen distrust of institutions in charge of the crime control. (Dammert, 2005).

Similar reasons for this shift of paradigm are found for the African case; as Cooper-Knock (2014) states, the failure of government to provide security and effective crime prevention

---

[3]For example, in Central America, the transitions from authoritarian rule also yielded another type of wave, one of criminal violence, which has been flooding Central America since the mid-1990s. More than ten years after the transitions, this crime wave has turned these countries into the most violent in the world (Cruz, 2011).

[4] According to the Australian Institute of Criminology (2011), crime prevention refers to the range of strategies that are implemented by individuals, communities, businesses, non-government organizations and all levels of government to target the various social and environmental factors that increase the risk of crime, disorder and victimization.

[5]El Salvador is a good example of this, because in the early postwar years, when the phenomenon of violence and crime started, gangs were not given the required importance and attention. The Governments did not address them with prevention policies, which at that time could have dismantled them easily and without excessive tensions. In reaction to the consolidation of these groups, when the presence and complexity problems were already undeniable, a set of policies in the line of "Mano Dura" (Strong Hand) were applied, causing a contrary effect from the one desired. These policies filled prisons gang with gang members indeed, but brought a strengthening and radicalization of its leaders, an increase in crime and the extent of gang control throughout the national territory. See IUDOP, 2014.

[6] Although there are many definitions for community, one concept refers to it as groups of people who know each other and have similar interests, either to a specific neighborhood and its inhabitants or to a group with similar characteristics and concerns. See UNODC, 2010.

has played a key role in Nigeria and South Africa, this is possibly due to poor training of police, corruption and poor politics.

In Africa the prevalence of community-based crime prevention (CBCP) efforts is such that has attracted scholarly attention from diverse disciplinary orientations. This widespread attention has thrown up what appear to be universal trends as well as diversity in the structure, operation and effectiveness of these types of initiatives in Africa.

The literature identifies that much can be done to address this issue of insecurity from the perspective of community crime prevention (ICPC, 2012: 82). According to Sherman (1998), communities are the central institution for crime prevention, the stage on which all other institutions perform: families, schools, labour markets, retail establishments, police and corrections must all confront the consequences of community life. Much of the success or failure of these other institutions is affected by the community context in which they operate[7].

On the side of Latin America, some interesting CBCP experiences are found. For example, Colombia counts with a CBCP experience entitled *Convivencia*. A programme implemented during the period of 1994 to 2002. The programme consisted in providing education for the inhabitants of the communities with the assistance from the metropolitan police in topics of safety and co-existence in order to attack fear, apathy, indifference and the lack of solidarity with violent acts, through the implementation of the community policing, Citizen Safety schools and safe zones programme (UNDP, 2007).

Additionally, an intervention in Brazil, fostered from a civil society NGO named *Viva Río*, worked with several programmes to keep youth out of the streets from Rio de Janeiro. Some of these programmes are *Jardineiros do Barrio* and *Vila-Lobinhos*, working in 350 favelas, provide vocational education, boxing training, and music tutoring for youth of low income status[8].

Also in South-America, Chile offers a pioneering crime prevention effort named *Comuna Segura,* which involves over 50 communities throughout the country and operates by involving the leaders of the community not only in the process of identifying the problems but also in the process of implementing local initiatives. (Benavente et al., 2002).

Moreover, during recent years, USAID promoted a set of CBCP programmes in some of the Central American countries. The initiative has designed and implemented a set of programmes to improve citizen security by strengthening community capacity to combat crime and by creating educational and employment opportunities for at-risk youth. USAID's crime prevention work has been implemented through its field Missions in five countries: El Salvador, Guatemala, Honduras, Nicaragua, and Panama, the impact evaluation of this

[7] Crime prevention activities that involve communities can be very active, innovative, effective and sometimes inspired in their ability to transform neighborhoods and to respond to local problems[7]. These efforts are likely to be able to change attitudes and behavior and provide a sense of ownership of the programme (UNODC, 2010).
[8] For more details visit: http://vivario.org.br/

programmes supports the idea that positive results in terms of crime reduction can be obtained by community based efforts (Berk-Selligson et. al, 2014)[9].

Although, many more experiences are found in the Latin American side[10], one final review for this continent is that of the *Ciudades Seguras* programme, fostered by the UNDP agency in El Salvador and carried out during the period of 2005 to 2010. This programme implied the creation of local violence prevention committees headed by the municipal government. The participation of the community consisted in accompanying as partners in the creation of a diagnostic of violence and crime in the communities. The purpose of the project consisted in ending up with the creation of a policy and a plan of security and co-existence to strengthen the local government on safety affairs (Hayek-Weinmann et. al, 2014).

In Africa, CBCP forms are equally diverse. Some are entirely citizen-initiated and remain solely in the hands of the citizens. Examples of these include the Oodua People's Congress in Nigeria, most neighbourhood watches in Africa (Nolte, 2007) the South African vigilante groups (Baker, 2002) and South African street courts (Burman & Sharf, 1990). Some others are state-initiated and/or state-supported such as the Sierra Leonean Partnership Boards (Baker, 2008), the Sungusungu in Tanzania (Fleisher, 2000) and the Police-Community Relations Committee (PCRC) units in Nigeria. Some yet are initiated and/or sponsored by donors (Brogden, 2005).

Studies of CBCP have shown that some of the efforts yield good results. For example, Nolte's (2007) work on the Oodua People's Congress in Southwest Nigeria, referred to earlier, shows that community-based strategies are very effective in fighting criminals, restoring law and order, while championing change.

Another example for Africa in terms of community policing is the case of Sierra Leone; Baker (2008) reviewed by Jenkins (2013) states that following the war in Sierra Leone, the police were perceived as a tool of state repression, incompetent, corrupt, unaccountable, heavily politicized and engaged in human rights abuses. As a response for overcoming the depths of mistrust which had grown between citizens and the police, the police adopted the community policing concept. Police community forums, known as Police Local Partnership Boards were introduced in 1999. Comprised of representatives of local groups and in partnership with the newly established Community Relations Offices, the Partnership Boards sought to give local communities a voice in local policing and to increase security in the country, despite flaws in implementation and design, and despite their over ambitious objectives, there is evidence to suggest that they are valuable, relevant and sustainable.

[9] For detailed information visit http://www.whitehouse.gov/ondcp/central-america

[10] Additionally, a few experiences labeled under the Community-based terminology, such as: Disarmed campaigns (El Salvador and Brazil); Conflicts mediation (Brazil and El Salvador); actions of coexistence and civic culture (Bogotá, Colombia); Alcohol prohibition (Diadema, Brazil and Bogotá, Colombia); Sport and leisure projects for a culture of peace (Luta Pela Paz, Brazil; Programa Fica Vivo, Brasil; MaraCA, Central America); police and youth approach (Papo de Responsa, Jogos de Paz, Proyecto Policía y juventud, Brasil; Policía de Neuquén, Argentina); community security council (Nicaragua, Chile, El Salvador, Brazil). See Ribeiro & Maître, 2009.

From the foregoing, it is clear that the examples of CBCP in Latin America and Africa are innumerable. What is not clear is how participatory these community-based projects are and whether or not community participation influences outcome.

2. JUSTIFICATION

While in general, crime in developed countries, specifically the US and Canada, and to a much lesser extent the European Union, has seen a general steady reduction in the past ten years, some areas of the world have seen an increase in their levels of violence and crime. In other parts of the less developed world, especially Africa and Latin America and the Caribbean crime rates continue to rise or remain stable (ICPC, 2012).

Within this context, crime prevention and provision of national security are two major issues on the policy table of the governments in Latin America and Africa. In Nigeria, the campaigns leading to the March 2015 elections have shown that current and potential policy makers prioritize crime prevention and citizen security.

In Africa's many transition and fragile states, there is growing emphasis on CBCP experiences because the formal criminal justice systems are fragile, and the police personnel is thin and overstretched. Formal police also lacks legitimacy and acceptance among citizens in some of these countries. As a result, there is policy emphasis on community policing and other forms of CBCP by both governments and donors. Yet, there is no clear evidence regarding the effectiveness of CBCP.

In Nigeria, the government has increased its efforts at establishing Police-Community Relations Committee (PCRC) and in recognising vigilantes (Inyang and Abraham, 2013). Government's ongoing fight against the insurgency in the North-Eastern parts of the country has involved community vigilantes who provided intelligence and help in stop-and-search efforts. In Kenya, the government is promoting the Nyumba Kumi, a neighbourhood watch and in Uganda, there are renewed efforts at introducing forms of CBCP, especially the village peace committees.

In the case of El Salvador a recent survey, among many others, shows that the main problem faced by the population is crime and insecurity. To be specific, 63.1% of the citizens interviewed for this survey stated that this was their major concern, by far above other types of problematic, such as the economic situation, unemployment, poverty, etc.[11]

Naturally, these insecurity perceptions have triggered the actions of the central government, which has dedicated important efforts in trying to address the phenomenon of crime and violence for years now. To mention a recent example, during the first half of January 2015, a

[11] For further details see http://www.uca.edu.sv/iudop/wp-content/uploads/PreelectoralA2015N1.pdf

new plan "El Salvador Seguro"[12] was presented by the National Council of Security. This plan is intended to be implemented during the following 5 years.

However, the phenomenon of criminality and violence is of such magnitude in the Central American region, that not only the Central Governments have been concerned with the problem. Instead, the International Cooperation Sector has also been supporting the combat and prevention of this unrest. For example, during the first few days of 2015, the Inter-American Development Bank (IADB) has started to promote the Creation of a Plan for the three Central American countries that comprise the Northern-Triangle sub-region.[13]

To mention another example, there exists a Central American Security Strategy (ESCA)[14], which aims to guide the coordinated actions on security of the countries in the region[15]in four related components: Fighting Crime; Violence Prevention; Rehabilitation, Reintegration; and Institutional Strengthening, to address the transnational nature of organized crime activities in these Central American countries.

This context leads to think that in Latin America, particularly in the countries of Central America and in El Salvador, many sectors are interested in finding solutions for the insecurity problem. The international cooperation sector's aid is creating important economic resources to implement solutions. Nevertheless, identifying proposals and evidence to tackle the problem in an effective fashion is still a challenge for which evidence is being needed. Additionally, it needs to be kept in mind that these policy recommendations have to be concise. Otherwise, according to a particular stakeholder interviewed for the ELLA project in El Salvador, policy makers frequently do not take these recommendations into account.

All these elements in Africa and Latin America, support the need for studies that can form the basis for policy recommendations on how participatory CBCP is and the extent to which community participation influences its effectiveness.

3. CENTRAL RESEARCH QUESTION

Does the direct and active participation of the community contribute to the outcomes of CBCP programmes and projects in Latin America and Africa?

[12] The name of this programme is likely to be translated as "A Safe El Salvador".
[13] El Salvador, Guatemala and Honduras.

[14] The ESCA is funded by the European Union, USAID, AECID and other contributions in the form of south-south cooperation from other countries of Latin America.
[15] Within the respective jurisdictions of the Central American countries.

4. POTENTIAL HYPOTHESES

a) Community-Based Crime Prevention programmes and projects in which there is community involvement in the design and implementation process (active participation) perform better than those without this involvement.
b) Community-Based Crime Prevention programmes and projects in which the community leaders and the community inhabitants participate (direct participation) perform better than those without direct participation.

5. RESEARCH DESIGN

Based on the first literature review, different types of CBCP experiences have been found in Latin America and Africa. Therefore, this research will be undertaken with an evidence review of existing research of experiences related to community-based crime preventions that have taken place in these two continents.

5.1 Sources of information

The information about programmes and projects related to community-based crime prevention will be gathered from: recognized international agencies in the topic of violence and crime prevention will be consulted in Africa and Latin America. On the other hand, peer reviewed academic journals specialized on the topic of criminology and prevention will be consulted too.

Additionally, since the stakeholders for this project, in El Salvador and Nigeria, were selected due their high level of expertise on the topic of crime, these experts will be able to recommend CBCP initiatives throughout each of these continents.

Finally, to gather additional information, experts and specialists for each of the selected CBCP initiatives will be interviewed.

6. RESEARCH METHODS

The research will combine an overview of the community-based initiatives in Latin American and Africa and in depth case studies of 8 initiatives, 4 in each region. The cases will be selected to represent 'typical cases' based on the regional overview.

The project is primarily qualitative, meaning that Fundaungo and Ibadan will review secondary evidence base that have been generated. The research will be focused on the use of qualitative methods. Information about the CBCP experiences is going to be gathered by reviewing the existing literature found and recommended by the experts in order to further ahead use the case studies methodology.

6.1. The CBCP experiences selected will meet the following selection criteria:

a) Implemented between the years of 1990 and 2014[16].

b) Community-based crime prevention programmes and projects that have been implemented as a joint effort by the community and state or a donor organisation.

c) Implemented in countries from Africa and Latin America.

d) A Community-based crime prevention experience has to be implemented in El Salvador and another one in Nigeria.

The following is a list of steps to be followed in order to conduct the case studies:

Step 1: map out the different CBCP efforts known in the records in the two continents.

Step 2: classify the experiences encountered in the previous step into a typology according to the community participation in the CBCP initiatives. The following table describes the possible outcomes according to the literature review:

Step 3: according to the findings using the typology, the most frequent type will be taken as the typical case for the study.

Step 4: select a total of eight CBCP experiences throughout the two continents; a total of four in Latin America and four in Africa. Each research centre will select two typical and two diverse.

For this research, a **Typical** case will be understood as the most frequent case in the universe of CBCP experiences in each continent. A **Diverse** case will be understood as a CBCP with different role of the community from the typical configuration. Using the comparative case methodology we will contrast the different participation schemes of the community (direct indirect, active or passive) in order to draw lessons of how the role of the community in these CBCP influences the outcome of community-based crime prevention efforts.

Step 5: study the selected cases in depth to draw conclusions and lessons out of the universe of CBCP experiences in both continents.

[16] Because in Latin America crime prevention strategies started to appear by the beginning of the 90s.

7. METHODS FOR IMPROVING POLICY UPTAKE

The following is a list of the stages that have been identified in the research process that can be used to engage with the stakeholders to keep them involved:

7.1. Design stage: The project design has been shared in private meetings and group discussions with the Key Audiences defined in the research proposal, in order to have feedback and information to improve the research development.

7.2. Project development stage: The preliminary findings will be presented during this stage to the Key Audiences. Also the Key Audiences will be involved as participants, informants and experts in the activities of the project.

7.3. Project results stage: The project's results will be disseminated through different output formats and activities targeted to the audiences defined.

REFERENCES

Alemika, E.E.O., and Chukwuma, I.C., 2004, *The Poor and Informal Policing in Nigeria*, The Centre for Law Enforcement Education (CLEEN), Lagos, Nigeria

Arnstein, S. (1969) "A Ladder of Participation" *Journal of American Institute of Planners* 35(4): 216-224

Australian Institute of Criminology (2011). Effective Crime Prevention Interventions for implementation by local government. AIC Reports, Research and Public policy Series 120.

Baker, B. (2002) 'Living with non-state policing in South Africa: the issues and dilemmas', *Journal of Modern African Studies*,40(1): 29-53

Bayley, D.H. (1986). Community policing in Australia: An appraisal Working paper. Report Series No. 35. ACPR. Payneham, SA

Benavente, J.M. Contreras, D., Melo, E., Montero, R. (2002). Programas anti-delincuencia: Evaluando Comuna Segura. Departamento de Economía Universidad de Chile.

Berk-Seligson, S. Orcés, D. Pizzolotto& G. Seligson, M.A. Wilson, C.J. (2014). Impact Evaluation of USAID's Community-Based Crime and Violence Prevention Approach in Central America: Regional Report for El Salvador, Guatemala, Honduras and Panama. Vanderbilt University, USA.

Brogden, M & Nijhar, P. (2005) *Community Policing: National and international models and approaches*, Willan Publishing, Cullompton

Brogden, M. (2005) '"Horses for Courses" and "Thin Blue Lines": Community policing in transitional society' *Police Quarterly* 8(1): 64-98

Burns, D., Hambleton, R. & Hoggett, P. (1994) *The Politics of Decentralisation: Revitalising Local Democracy: Revitalising Local Government*, London: Macmillan.

Cornwall, A. (2008) "Unpacking 'Participation': models, meanings and practices" *Community Development Journal* 43(3): 269–283.

Cruz, J. M. (2011). Criminal Violence and Democratization in Central America: The Survival of the Violent State. Latin American Politics and Science. Volume 53, Issue 4, pages 1–33, Winter 2011.

Dammert, L. (2005). Prevención comunitaria del delito en América Latina: desafíos y oportunidades. *Desafíos, Bogotá (Colombia), (13): 124-156, semestre II de 2005.*

Ekblom, P. & Pease, K. (1995). Evaluating Crime Prevention."In: M. Tonry and D.P. Farrington (eds.), Building a Safer Society: Strategic Approaches to Crime and Justice. (Crime and Justice: A Review of Research, vol.19.) Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press

English, B. J., Cummings, R. & Straton, R. G. (2002). Choosing an evaluation model for community crime prevention programmes. Crime Prevention Studies, volume 14, pp. 119-169.

Hayek-Weinmann, E., Sandoval, R., Mejía, C. (2014). Informe de sistematización de políticas públicas, programas y proyectos en materia de prevención de violencia y seguridad publica 2003-2013. Polity Working Group.

Institute for Security Studies & Africa Check (2014) "FACTSHEET: South Africa's official crime statistics for 2013/14" http://africacheck.org/factsheets/factsheet-south-africas-official-crime-statistics-for-201314/#sthash.fwzoqMGC.dpuf

Inyang, J. D and Abraham, U. E (2013) "Policing Nigeria: A case for partnership between formal and informal police institutions" *Merit Research Journal of Art, Social Science and Humanities* 1(4): 53-58

IUDOP (2014). La situación de la seguridad y la justicia 2009-2014: entre expectativas de cambio, mano dura militar y treguas pandilleras. Instituto Universitario de Opinión Pública. San Salvador, El Salvador.

Jelin, E., Hershberg, E. (org). (1996). Constructing democracy: human rights, citizenship and society in Latin America. United States of America: Westview Press.

Jenkins, S. (2013) Securing communities: summaries of key literature on community policing *Shaping policy for* development. Overseas Development Institute. UK.

Lambert, E., Wu, Y., Elechi, O.O. and Jiang, S. (2012). Correlates of Support for Community-Police Partnerships in Policing among Nigerian and US College Students: An Exploratory Study. *International Criminal Justice Review*, 22 (3), 276-296

Mukherjee, S. K. (1987). Neighbourhood Watch: Myth or Reality: The Manufacturing of Crime. Proceedings of the 8th Annual Congress of the Australian and New Zealand Association of Psychiatry, Psychology and Law. Melbourne, Australia.

Müller, M.M. (2010). Community policing in Latin America: lessons from Mexico City. European Review of Latin American and Caribbean Studies 88, April 2010. Centro de Estudios y Documentación Latinoamericanos, Amsterdam.

Nigerian Police (2009). Crime Data: http://www.nigeriapolicewatch.com/resources/crime-data/

Nolte, I. (2007). Ethnic Vigilantes and the State: The Oodua People's Congress in South-Western Nigeria. International Relations, 21 (2), 217-235.

Nyaura, Jasper Edward & Ngugi, Margaret Njeri (2014). The Benefits and Challenges Emanating from Community Policing in Kenya: A Criminological Perspective *International Journal of Innovation and Scientific Research* Vol. 12 No. 1, pp.13-21

Ojebode, A. and Akingbulu, A. (2012) Contended Listeners in Blurred Borders: The Nigerian-Benin Republic Baruten and their Community Radio. *Journal of Environment and Culture*. Vol. 9. No. 2, pp. 79-96

Owen, O. and Cooper-Knock, S.J. (2014). "Between Vigilantism and Bureaucracy: Improving our Understanding of Police work in Nigeria and South Africa", Theoretical Criminology pp 1-21

Ribeiro, L., Maitre, R. (2010). La Prevención del delito y la participación comunitaria en América Latina: Algunos aportes. Serie Documentos de Trabajo, no. 2. Consorcio Global para la Transformación de la seguridad. Santiago de Chile.

Rosembaum, D. (2002). Evaluating Multi-Agency Anti-Crime Partnerships: Theory, Design, and Measurement Issues. Volume 14, 2002

Sherman, L.W., Gottfredson, D., MacKenzie, D., Eck, J., Reuter, P., Bushway, S. (1998). Preventing Crime: What Works, What Doesn't, What's Promising. Washington, DC: National Institute of Justice.

UNDP (2007). Programa de la Promoción de la convivencia. PNUD. Bogotá, Colombia.

United Nations Office on Drugs and Crimes (UNODC)(2013) *Global Study on Homicides*

UNODC&ICPC (2010). Handbook on the crime prevention guidelines: Making them work. United Nations Office on Drugs and Crime & International Center for the Prevention of Crime. New York.

UNODC& UN-HABITAT (2009).Cross-Cutting Issues: Crime prevention assessment tool. United Nations. New York.

UNODC (2005). Crime and Development in Africa. United Nations Office on Drugs. Vienna.

UNODC(2011). Global Study on Homicide.http://www.unodc.org/documents/data-and-analysis/statistics/Homicide/Globa_study_on_homicide_2011_web.pdf

Vanderschueren, F. (2004). Políticas de seguridad ciudadana en Europa y América Latina: Lecciones y desafíos. BID. Santiago de Chile.

Wilcox, D. (1999) *A to Z of Participation* Joseph Rowntree Foundation.